



General Psychology



**Welcome
to**

**GENERAL PSYCHOLOGY
COURSE (PSYC 1011)**

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Chapter Three

Learning and Theories of Learning

Learning Outcomes

- **Explain the general meaning, types, and factors of learning**
- Identify the characteristics of learning
- **Describe some of the theories designed to explain the characteristics of learning**
- Differentiate the viewpoints of different theories of learning.
- **Discuss the applications of theories of learning**
- State techniques used to motivate and reinforce behaviour.

Definition of Learning

**is a relatively permanent change in behavior
which is a function of prior experience or practice;**

- ✓ a change in behaviour
- ✓ a relatively permanent
- ✓ a result of experience, or practice

Four Attributes Of Learning

- Learning is a change in **behavior**. This change in behavior is relatively **permanent**
- It does not include change due to illness, fatigue, maturation and use of intoxicant.
- This permanent change in behavior is not because of **biological factors** (like hormonal changes) that bring permanent changes in behavior; but because of experience, or practice
- The learning is **not directly observable** but manifests in the activities of the individual.

Characteristics of learning

- continuous *modification* of behavior throughout life
- *pervasive*, it reaches into **all aspects** of human life.
- involves the **whole person**, socially, emotionally & intellectually.
- often a change in the **organization** of experiences.
- responsive to *incentives*
- an **active process** and **purposeful**
- depends on maturation, motivation and practice.
- multifaceted

Principles of Learning

- Individuals learn best when they are physically, mentally, and emotionally **ready** to learn.
- Students learn best and retain information longer when they have meaningful **practice and exercise**
- Learning is **strengthened** when accompanied by a **pleasant** or satisfying feeling, and that learning is **weakened** when associated with an **unpleasant** feeling.
- Things **learned first** create a strong impression in the mind that is difficult to erase.
- Things most **recently learned** are best remembered.

Cont...

- The principle of *intensity* implies that a student will learn more from the **real thing** than from a substitute.
- Individuals must have **some abilities and skills** that may help them to learn.
- Things **freely learned** are best learned - the greater the freedom enjoyed by individuals, the higher the intellectual and moral advancement.

Factors Influencing Learning

- Motivation
- Maturation
- Health condition of the learner
- Psychological wellbeing of the learner
- Good working conditions
- Background experiences
- Length of the working period
- Massed and distributed learning

Theories of Learning and their Applications

- Theories of learning attempt to explain the mechanism of behavior involved in the learning process. Generally, learning theories can be categorized as:

1. Behavioral Learning Theories

- Classical conditioning
- Operant conditioning

1. Cognitive Learning Theories

2. Social Learning Theory

Behaviorist Learning Theories

- ✓ Learning occurs as a result of **stimulus-response associations**.
- ✓ Emphasize **observable behaviours**, seek laws to govern all organisms, and provide explanations which focus on **consequences**.
- ✓ Behaviourists also differ among themselves with respect to their views about the **role of reinforcement in learning**. There are two major behavioural theories of learning. They are known as **Classical and Operant Conditioning**.

Classical Conditioning Theory

- ✓ founded by a Russian physiologist, **Ivan Pavlov((1849-1936).**
- ✓ He studied the process of **salivary secretion in dog.**
- ✓ stimulus conditions and the **associations** formed in the learning process.
- ✓ Focuses on the learning of making **involuntary emotional or physiological responses** to stimuli that normally elicit no response

Cont...

- Through the process of classical conditioning, humans and animals can be trained to act **involuntarily to a stimulus** that previously had no effect or a very different effect on them.
- The stimulus comes to elicit, modify the behaviour of the learners in such a way as the responses originally connected with a particular stimulus comes to be aroused by a different stimulus.
- Classical conditioning is a type of learning in which a **neutral stimulus** comes to bring about a **response** after it is **paired** with a stimulus that **naturally** brings about that response.

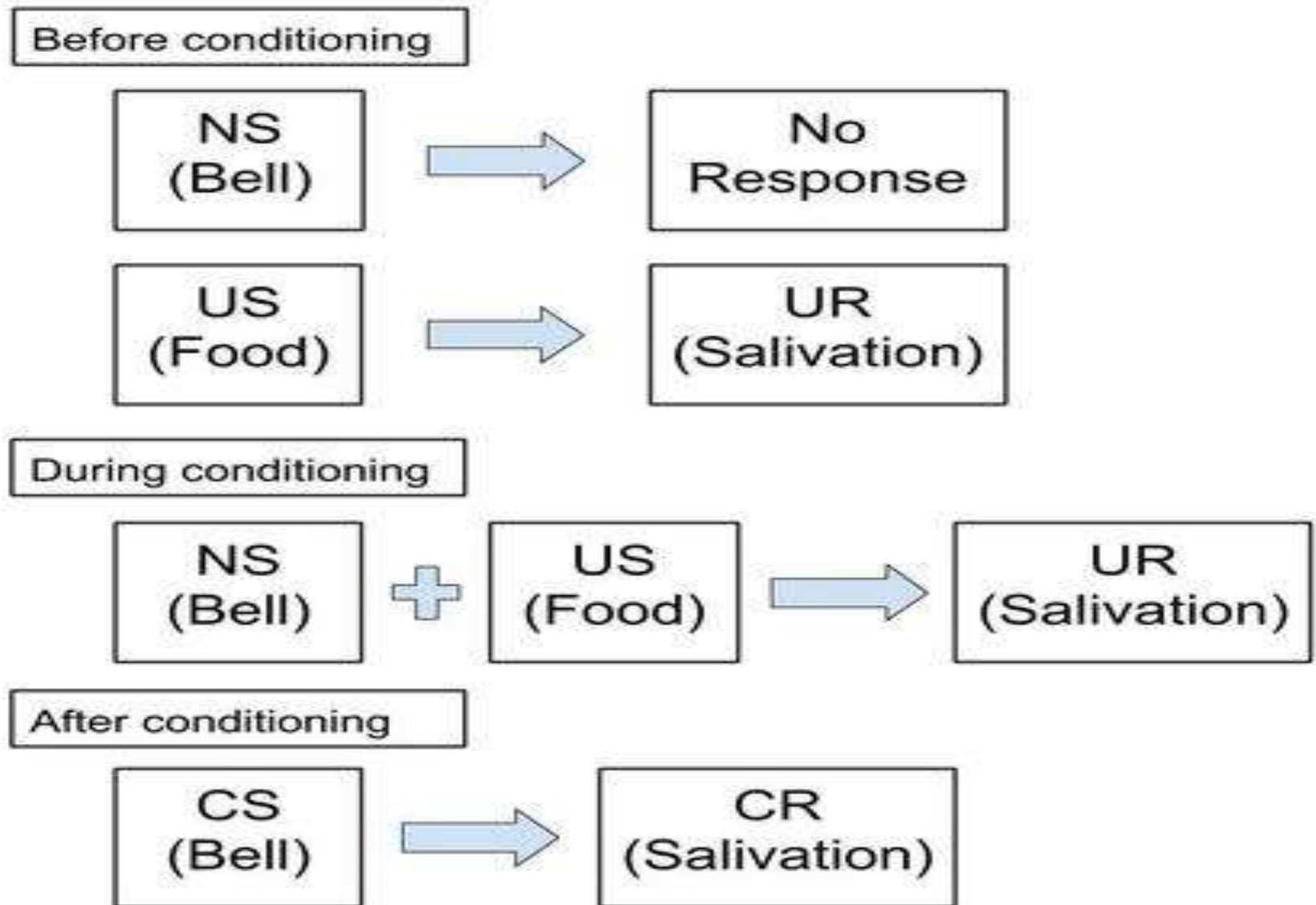
Basics of Classical Condition

- **Neutral stimulus:** A stimulus that, before conditioning, does not naturally bring about the response of interest.
- **Unconditioned stimulus (UCS):** A stimulus that naturally brings about a particular response without having been learned.
- **Unconditioned response (UCR):** A response that is natural and needs no training (e.g., salivation at the smell of food).
- **Conditioned stimulus (CS):** A once neutral stimulus that has been paired with an unconditioned stimulus to bring about a response formerly caused only by the unconditioned stimulus.
- **Conditioned response (CR):** A response that, after conditioning, follows a previously neutral stimulus (e.g., salivation at the ringing of a bell).

Cont...

- Hence, the theory of classical conditioning represents a process in which a neutral stimulus, by **pairing** with a natural stimulus, acquires all the characteristics of natural stimulus.
- It is also sometimes called **substitution learning** because it involves substituting a **neutral stimulus in place of natural stimulus**.
- The theory states that the responses originally made to unconditioned stimulus becomes associated with the conditioned stimulus and what is learned is a **conditioned stimulus** - conditioned response bond of some kind.
- To make this explanation clear, let us consider Pavlov's experiment.

Cont...



Principles of Classical Condition

- **Stimulus generalization** is a process in which, after a stimulus has been conditioned to produce a particular response, stimuli that are **similar** to the original stimulus begin to produce the same responses.
- **Stimulus discrimination** is the process of **distinguishing** two similar stimuli; the ability to differentiate between stimuli.
- Extinction and spontaneous recovery In Pavlov's procedure, if a CS is repeatedly presented without presenting the UCS (meat), the CR will diminish and **eventually stop occurring**. This process is called **extinction**.
- Spontaneous recovery is the **reemergence** of an extinguished conditioned response after a period of rest and with no further conditioning. In spontaneous recovery, however, the CR is weaker and extinguishes faster than it did originally

Operant/Instrumental conditioning

- ✓ developed by an American psychologist, **B. F. Skinner**.

Assumptions

- Learning in which a **voluntary response** is strengthened or weakened, depending on its favorable or unfavorable **consequences**.
- An emphasis on **environmental consequences** is at the heart of Operant Conditioning (also called Instrumental Conditioning).
- In operant conditioning, the **organism's response** operates or produces effects on the environment. These effects, in turn, influence, whether the response will occur again.

In Skinner's Analysis,

- A response (operant) can lead to three types of consequences: such as
 - A. A neutral consequence
 - B. A reinforcement or
 - C. Punishment
- A. A neutral Consequence that does not alter the response.**

Reinforcement

- A reinforcement that ***strengthens*** the response or makes it more likely to recur.
- A ***reinforcer*** is any event that ***increases*** the probability that the behavior that precedes it will be repeated.
- There are ***two*** basic types of reinforcers or reinforcing stimuli:
 - ***Primary reinforcers*** (naturally reinforcing because they satisfy biological needs & strengthen a behavior without prior learning)
 - ***Secondary reinforcers*** (reinforce behavior because of their prior association with primary reinforcing stimuli).

- Both primary and secondary reinforcers can be positive or negative.

Positive reinforcement

- is the process whereby ***presentation*** of a stimulus makes behavior more likely to occur again.

Negative reinforcement

- *is the process whereby **termination of an aversive stimulus** makes behavior more likely to occur.*
- The basic principle of negative reinforcement is that eliminating something aversive can itself be a reinforcer or a reward.

Cont...

- In **escape learning** animals learn to make a response that terminates/stops a noxious, painful or unpleasant stimulus.
- **Avoidance Learning**, which refers to learning to avoid a painful, noxious stimulus prior to exposure.

Schedules of Reinforcement

Continuous schedule of reinforcement

- When a response is first acquired, learning is usually most rapid if the response is reinforced each time it occurs.

Intermittent (partial) schedule of reinforcement

- which involves reinforcing only some responses, not all of them.
- response has become reliable, it will be more resistant to extinction if it is rewarded partially
- There are four types of intermittent schedules.
 1. Fixed-ratio schedules
 2. Variable-Ratio Schedule
 3. Fixed Interval Schedule
 4. Variable Interval Schedule

Ratio Schedules

Fixed-Ratio Schedules

- occurs after a *fixed number of responses*
- produce high rate of responding
- performance sometimes drops off just after reinforcement
- It is effective for motivating a great amount of work

Variable-Ratio Schedule

- occurs after *some average number of responses*
- produces extremely high steady rates of responding
- responses are more *resistant to extinction*

Interval Schedule

Fixed Interval Schedule

- reinforcement occurs only if a *fixed amount of time* has passed since the previous reinforcer.

Variable Interval Schedule

- reinforcement occurs only if *a variable amount of time* has passed since the previous reinforcer.

Punishment

- is a stimulus that ***weakens*** the response or makes it less likely to recur.
- Punishers can be any ***aversive*** (unpleasant) stimuli that weaken responses or make them unlikely to recur.
- *Immediacy, consistency* and *intensity* matter are important for effectiveness of punishment.
- Like reinforcers, punishers can also be
 - **Primary punishers** (Pain and extreme heat or cold are inherently punishing)
 - **Secondary punishers** (criticism, demerits, catcalls, scolding, fines, and bad grades)

TABLE 5.3 FOUR WAYS TO MODIFY BEHAVIOR

	Reinforcement	Punishment
POSITIVE (Adding)	Something valued or desirable; <i>Positive Reinforcement</i> Example: getting a gold star for good behavior in school	Something unpleasant; <i>Punishment by Application</i> Example: getting a spanking for disobeying
NEGATIVE (Removing/ Avoiding)	Something unpleasant; <i>Negative Reinforcement</i> Example: avoiding a ticket by stopping at a red light	Something valued or desirable; <i>Punishment by Removal</i> Example: losing a privilege such as going out with friends

The Pros and Cons of Punishment

Immediacy, consistency and intensity matter are important for effectiveness of punishment.

- **Immediacy** – When punishment follows immediately after the behaviour to be punished.
- **Consistency**- when punishment is **inconsistent** the behaviour being punished is intermittently reinforced and therefore becomes resistant to extinction.
- **Intensity**- In general terms **severe** punishments are more effective than mild ones. However, there are studies that indicate that even less intense punishments are effective provided that they are applied immediately and consistently.

Shaping

- is an operant conditioning procedure in which ***successive approximations*** of a desired response are reinforced.
- In shaping you start by reinforcing a tendency in the ***right direction***. Then you gradually require responses that are more and more similar to the final desired response.
- The responses that you reinforce on the way to the final one are called successive approximations.

Key Concepts

- Both classical and operant conditionings have traditionally been explained by the principle of **contiguity** i.e. the close association of events in time and space.
- **Contiguity** has been used to explain the association of a conditioned stimulus and unconditioned stimulus in classical conditioning and the association of a behaviour and its consequences in operant conditioning.

Social Learning Theory (Observational Learning Theory)

- Developed by [Albert Bandura](#)
- Which is learning by [watching](#) the behavior of another person, or *model*.
- Learning rely on a ***social phenomenon***—it is often referred to as a *social cognitive approach to learning*
- Emphasis on interaction of behavior, environment, and person (cognitive) factors as determinants of learning
- Three ***forms*** of reinforcement that can encourage observational learning
 - *direct reinforcement*
 - *vicarious reinforcement*
 - *Self-reinforcement*

Direct Reinforcement

- When the observer may reproduce the behaviors of the model and receive *direct reinforcement*.

Vicarious Reinforcement

- When the observer may reproduce the behaviors of the model but *the reinforcement need not be direct - it may be vicarious reinforcement* as well.
- the observer may simply see others reinforced for a particular behavior and then increase his or her production of that behavior.

Self-Reinforcement

- *Or controlling your reinforcers.*
- *Important for improve, value and enjoy their growing competence.*

Four Conditions

Attention

- the person must first pay attention to the model.

Retention

- the observer must be able to remember the behavior that has been observed (rehearsal).

Motor reproduction

- the ability to replicate the behavior that the model has just demonstrated.

Motivation

- learners must want to demonstrate what they have learned.

Cognitive Learning Theory

- Cognitive processes are thus the *mental processes* involved in knowing about the world:- as such they are important in perception, attention, thinking, problem solving, and memory.
- Cognitive learning may take two *forms*.
 - Latent learning
 - Insight learning (gestalt learning or perceptual learning)

Latent Learning

- Latent' means ***hidden***
- Is learning that occurs but is not evident in behavior until later, when ***conditions*** for its appearance are favorable.
- It occur without reinforcement of particular responses and seems to involve changes in the way information is processed.
- learning that is ***not immediately expressed***.
- A great deal of human learning also remains latent until ***circumstances*** allow or require it to be expressed.

Insight Learning

- It is a cognitive process whereby we *reorganize our perception* of a problem.
- In a typical insight situation where a problem is posed, a period follows during which no apparent progress is made, and then the solution comes suddenly.
- Human beings who solve a problem insightfully usually experience a good feeling called an '*aha*' experience.
- Sometimes, for example, people even wake up from sleep with a solution to a problem that they had not been able to solve during the day.

CHAPTER FOUR

MEMORY AND FORGETTING

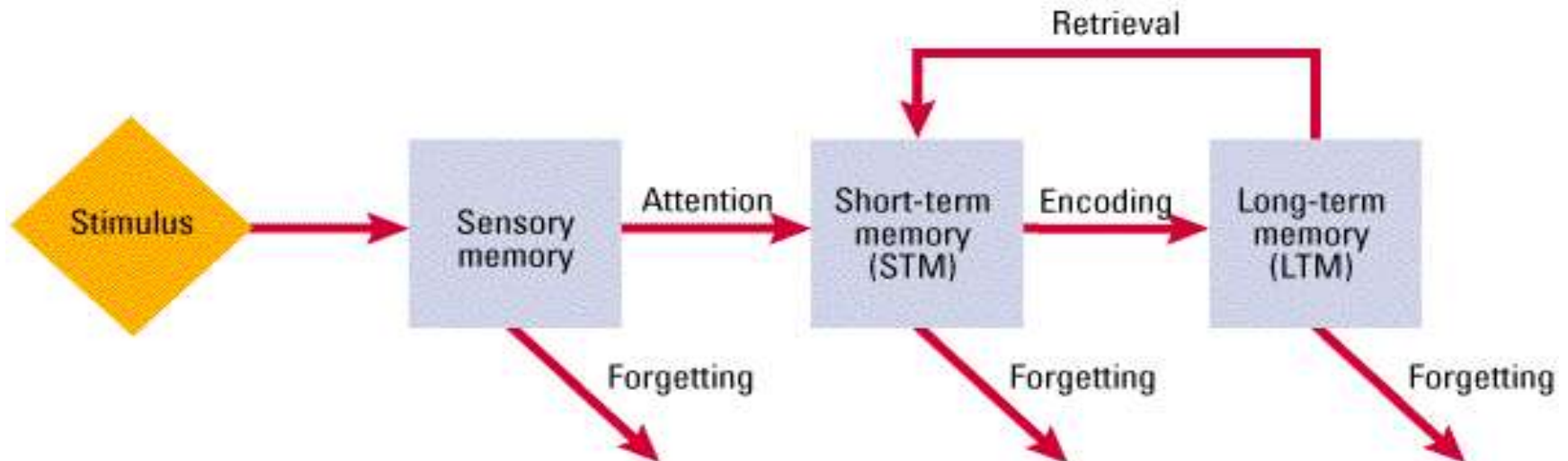


Learning Outcomes

- Define memory and forgetting.
- Describe the stages and memory structures proposed by theory of memory.
- Explain the processes that are at work in memory functions.
- Identify how learned materials are organized in the long term memory.
- State the factors underlying on the persistence, and loss of memory.
- Explain different theories of forgetting.

Meaning and Processes of Memory

- It is the *retention* of information/what is learned earlier over time.
- It is the way in which we *record* the past for later use in the present.
- Memory is a *blanket label* for a large number of processes that form the bridges between our past and our present.



Processes of Memory

- It is the **mental activities** we perform to *put* information into memory, to *keep* it there, and to make *use* of it later.
- This involves three basic steps:

- a) Encoding
- b) Storage
- c) Retrieval

a) Encoding

- the term encoding refers to the *form* (i.e. the code) in which an item of information is to be *placed* in memory.
- the process by which information is *initially recorded* in a form usable to memory.
- In encoding we *transform a sensory input into a form or a memory code* that can be further processed.

b) Storage

- To be remembered the encoded experience must leave some record in the nervous system (*the memory trace*); it must be squirreled away and held in some more or less enduring form for later use.
- Storage is the *persistence* of information in memory.

c) Retrieval

- is the point at which one tries to *remember* to dredge up a particular memory trace from among all the others we have stored.
- In retrieval, material in memory storage is *located*, brought into *awareness* and *used*.

Memory is the process by which information is encoded (phase 1), stored (phase 2) and later retrieved (phase 3).

Stages/Structure of Memory

According to Atkinson and Shiffrin (1968), memory has three structures:

1. Sensory Memory/Sensory Register
2. Short-Term Memory
3. Long Term Memory

1) Sensory Memory/Sensory Register

- It is the *entry* way to memory (*first* information storage area).
- It acts as a holding bin, retaining information until we can select items for attention.
- It gives us a *brief time* to decide whether information is extraneous or important.
- It can hold virtually *all the information* reaching our senses for a brief time.

- For instance,
 - **Visual images** (Iconic memory) remain in the visual system for a maximum of *one second*.
 - **Auditory images** (Echoic memory) remain in the auditory system for a slightly longer time, by most estimates up to *two second* or so.
- Information is accurate representation of the environmental information but *unprocessed*.
- ***Most information briefly held in the sensory memory simply decays from the register.***
- However, some of the information that has got attention and recognition pass on short-term memory for further processing.

Short-Term Memory

- It holds the *contents* of our attention.
- It consist memories of the *by-products or end results of perceptual analysis*.
- Also called working memory, immediate memory, active memory, and primary memory.
- It has *four* characteristics:
 - **It is active** (workspace to process new information)there is consciously processing, examining, or manipulating information
 - **Rapid accessibility**: Information is readily available for use
 - **Preserves the temporal sequence of information**: maintain the information in sequential manner for a temporary period of time
 - **Limited capacity**: the magic number seven plus or minus

Chunking

- *grouping or packing of information* into higher order units that can be remembered as single units.
 - It *expands working memory* by making large amounts of information more manageable.
 - The real capacity of short-term memory, therefore, is not a few bits of information but a few chunks.
-
- STM memory holds information received from SM for up to *about 30 seconds* by most estimates.
 - It is possible to prolong STM indefinitely by *rehearsal*-the conscious repetition of information.
 - Material in STM is easily displaced unless we do something to keep it there.

Long Term Memory

- It is a memory system used for the *relatively permanent storage of meaningful information*.
- The capacity of LTM seems to have **no practical limits**.
- The vast amount of information stored in LTM enables us to learn, get around in the environment, and build a sense of identity and personal history.
- LTM stores information for *indefinite periods*. It may last for days, months, years, or even a lifetime.

Sub Systems of LTM

- **Declarative/ explicit memory**- the conscious recollection of information such as specific facts or events that can be verbally communicated. Divided into two:
 - **Semantic memory**- factual knowledge like the meaning of words, concepts and our ability to do math. They are internal representations of the **world**, independent of any particular context.
 - **Episodic memory**- memories for events and situations from personal experience. They are internal representations of **personally** experienced events.
- **Non-declarative/ implicit memory**- behavior is affected by prior experience without that experience being consciously recollected. One of the most important kinds of implicit memory is **procedural memory**. It is the how to knowledge of procedures or skills: Knowing how to comb your hair, use a pencil, or swim.

Serial Position Effect

- The three-box model of memory is often invoked to explain interesting phenomenon called the *serial position effect*.
- If you are shown a list of items and are then asked immediately to recall them, your retention of any particular item will depend on its *position in the list*.
- That is, recall will be best for items at the beginning of the list (*the primacy effect*) and at the end of the list (*the recency effect*).
- When retention of all the items is plotted, the result will be a *U-shaped curve*.

Factors Affecting Memory

- **Ability to retain:** good memory traces left in the brain by past experiences.
- **Good health:** good health can retain the learnt material better
- **Age of the learner:** Youngsters can remember better than the aged.
- **Maturity:** Very young children cannot retain and remember complex material.
- **Will to remember:** Willingness to remember helps for better retention
- **Intelligence:** More intelligent person will have better memory
- **Interest:** will learn and retain better.
- **Over learning:** over learning will lead to better memory.
- **Speed of learning:** Quicker learning leads to better retention,
- **Meaningfulness of the material:** it remain in our memory for longer period
- **Sleep or rest:** after learning strengthens connections in the brain and helps for clear memory.

Forgetting

- The *apparent loss of information* already encoded and stored in the long-term memory.
- The first attempts to study forgetting were made by German psychologist *Hermann Ebbinghaus* (1885/1913).
- There is almost always a strong initial decline in memory, followed by a more gradual drop over time.
- Furthermore, *relearning* of previously mastered material is almost always faster than starting from a scratch

Theories of Forgetting

- Psychologists have proposed *five mechanisms* to account for forgetting:
 - 1) The Decay Theory
 - 2) Replacement of old memories by new ones
 - 3) Interference
 - 4) Motivated forgetting
 - 5) Cue dependent forgetting

The Decay Theory

- memory traces or engram fade with time if they are *not accessed now and then*.
- In decay, the trace simply fades away with nothing left behind, because of the *passage of time*.

Interference Theory

- It occurs because *similar items of information interfere with one another* in either storage or retrieval.
- There are two kinds of interference :
 - In **Proactive Interference**, information learned earlier interferes with recall of newer material.
 - If new information interferes with the ability to remember old information the interference is called **Retroactive Interference**.

New Memory for Old/ Displacement Theory

- This theory holds that ***new information entering memory can wipe out old information***, just as recording on an audio or videotape will obliterate/wipe out the original material.

Motivated Forgetting

- Sigmund Freud maintained that people forget because they block from consciousness those memories that are ***too threatening or painful to live with***, and he called this self-protective process Repression.

Cue Dependent Forgetting

- When we ***lack retrieval cues***, we may feel as if we have lost the call number for an entry in the mind's library.
- In long-term memory, this type of memory failure may be the most common type of all.

Improving Memory

- **Pay Attention:** It seems obvious, but often we fail to remember because we never encoded the information in the first place.
- **Encode information in more than one way:** The more elaborate the encoding of information, the more memorable it will be
- **Add meaning:** The more meaningful the material, the more likely it is to link up with information already in long-term memory.
- **Take your time:** If possible, minimize interference by using study breaks for rest or recreation. Sleep is the ultimate way to reduce interference.
- **Over learn:** Studying information even after you think you already know it- is one of the best ways to ensure that you'll remember it.
- **Monitor your learning:** By testing yourself frequently, rehearsing thoroughly, and reviewing periodically, you will have a better idea of how you are doing.

Chapter Five

Motivation And Emotion



Chapter Outline

- Definition of motivation
- The two types of motivation
- Theories of motivation
- Types of conflicts of motives
- Definition of emotion
- Three elements of emotion
- Theories of emotion

Definition and Types of Motivation

- It is a factor by which activities are **started**, **directed** and **continued** so that physical or psychological **needs** or wants are met.
- The word itself comes from the **Latin** word ‘**Mover**’, which means -to move.
- Motivation is **what -moves people to do** the things they do.

Types of motivation.

- **Intrinsic motivation** is a type of motivation in which a person acts because the act itself is rewarding or satisfying in some **internal manner**.
- **Extrinsic motivation** is a type of motivation in which individuals act because the action leads to an outcome that is **external** to a person.

Approaches to Motivation

- The sources of motivation are different according to the different theories of motivation.
- There are many causes of behaviour. People perform behaviour for a number of reasons.
- Psychologists have been studying the **causes of behaviours** and have developed various theories that explain the why of these behaviours
- Some of these theories are
 - Instinct approaches
 - Drive-reduction approaches
 - Arousal approaches
 - Incentive approaches
 - Cognitive approaches
 - Humanistic approaches

Instinct Approaches to Motivation

- It focused on the biologically determined and innate patterns of both humans and animals behavior.
- According to this approach, people and animals are born with **programmed sets of behavior essential to their survival**.
- Motivation is **evolutionarily** programmed through inborn instinctual behavior patterns.
- According to this instinct theory, in humans, the instinct to reproduce is responsible for sexual behavior, and the instinct for territorial protection may be related to aggressive behavior.
- One important thing by forcing psychologists to realize that some **human behavior is controlled by hereditary factors**.

Drive-Reduction Approaches

- This approach involved the concepts of **needs** and **drives**.
- A need is a requirement of some material (such as food or water) that is essential for the **survival** of the organism.
- When an organism has a need, it leads to a psychological tension as well as physical arousal to fulfill the need and reduce the tension. This tension is called **drive**.
- It proposes just this connection between **internal psychological states and outward behavior**.
- In this theory, there are **two** kinds of drives:
 - **Primary drives** (biological needs) are those that involve survival needs of the body such as hunger and thirst,
 - **Secondary drives** (acquired drives) are those that are learned through experience or conditioning, such as the need for money, social approval.

- Behavior is motivated by desires to reduce internal tension caused by unmet biological needs, such as hunger or thirst.
- Internal drives “push” us to behave in certain ways.
- Robert Woodworth & Clark Hull: Drives are triggered by internal mechanisms of *homeostasis* → Internal state of balance.
- Limitations: All behaviors are not always motivated purely by physiological needs.

Arousal Approaches

- Explain behavior in which the goal is to maintain or increase excitement.
- People take certain actions to either decrease or increase levels of arousal.
- People are motivated to maintain an *optimal level of arousal*
- Each person tries to maintain a certain level of stimulation and activity.
- As with the drive-reduction model, this approach suggests that if our stimulation and activity levels become too high, we try to reduce them.
- But, in contrast to the drive-reduction perspective, the arousal approach also suggests that if levels of stimulation and activity are too low, we will try to increase them by seeking stimulation.

Incentive Approaches

- suggest that motivation stems from the desire to attain **external rewards**.
- The desirable properties of **external stimuli**: account for a **person's motivation**.
- Embedded in behavioral learning concepts as **association** and **reinforcement**.
- Many psychologists believe that the internal drives proposed by drive-reduction theory work in a cycle with the external incentives of incentive theory to **'push' and 'pull' behavior**, respectively.
- Hence, at the same time that we seek to satisfy our underlying hunger needs (the push of drive-reduction theory), we are drawn to food that appears very appetizing (the pull of incentive theory).
- Rather than contradicting each other, then, drives and incentives may work together in motivating behavior.

Cognitive Approaches

- Suggest that motivation is a result of people's **thoughts, beliefs, expectations**, and goals.
- Cognitive theories of motivation draw a key difference between intrinsic and extrinsic motivation.
- **Intrinsic motivation** causes us to participate in an activity for **our enjoyment** rather than for any actual or concrete reward that it will bring us.
- In contrast, **extrinsic motivation** causes us to do something for money, a grade, or some other actual, **concrete reward**.

Humanistic approaches to motivation

- Maslow suggested that human behavior is influenced by a **hierarchy**, or **ranking**, of five classes of needs, or motives.
- Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs.
- People have **strong cognitive reasons** to perform various actions.
- Motivation to realize their **highest personal potential**.
- He said that needs at the lowest level of the hierarchy must be at least partially **satisfied** before people can be motivated by the ones at higher levels.
- Maslow's **five** Hierarchies of needs for motives from the bottom to the top are as follows:



Conflict of Motives and Frustration

- Based on the sources of motivation and the importance of the decision, people usually face difficulty choosing among the motives.
- These are just a few of the motives that may shape a trivial decision.
- When the decision is more important, the number and strength of motivational pushes and pulls are often greater, creating far more internal conflict and indecision.
- refers to negative emotional state (depression, anger, anxiety, etc) that develop when a person is unable to make a choice between two or more alternatives.
- There are four basic types of motivational conflicts.
 - Approach-approach conflicts
 - Avoidance-avoidance conflicts
 - Approach-avoidance conflicts
 - Multiple approach-avoidance conflicts

Approach-approach conflicts

- exist when we must choose only **one** of the **two** desirable activities.

Avoidance-avoidance conflicts

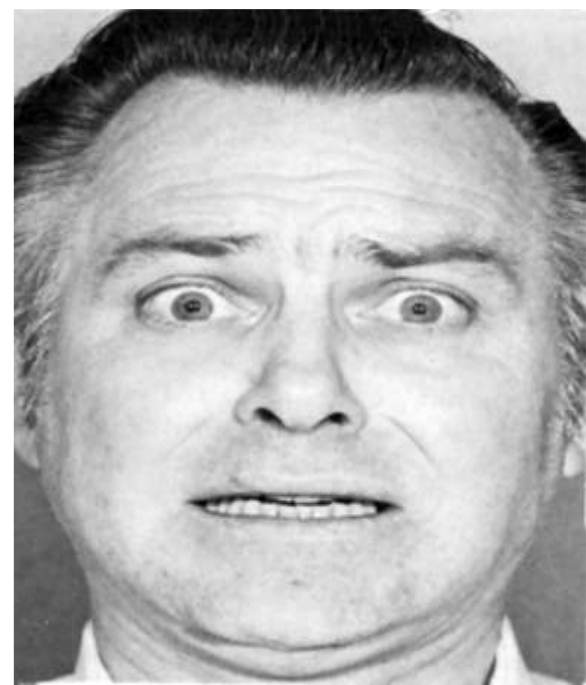
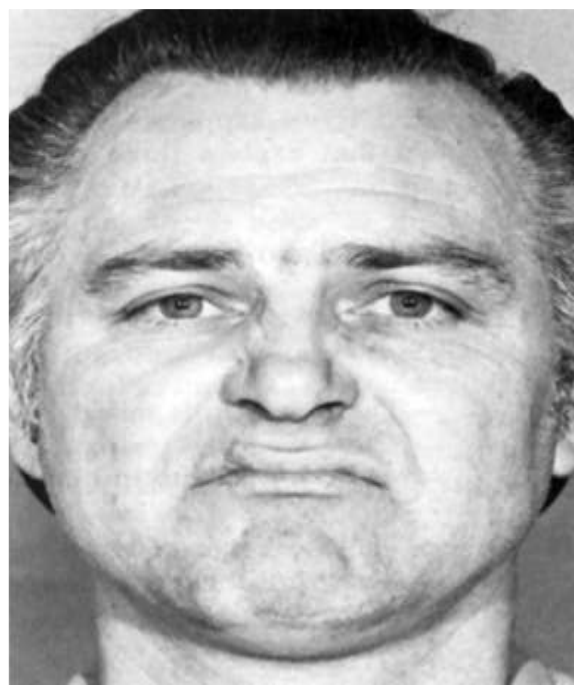
- arise when we must select **one** of **two** undesirable alternatives.

Approach-avoidance conflicts

- happen when a particular **event** or activity has both **attractive** and **unattractive** features

Multiple approach-avoidance conflicts

- exist when two or more alternatives each have both positive and negative features.



Emotions

Definition of Emotion

- Latin "*Emovere*" → "To excite, stir up or agitate."
- It refers to a strong feeling about something.
- the 'feeling' aspect of consciousness, characterized by certain physical arousal, certain behavior that reveals the feeling to the outside world, and an inner awareness of feelings.
- Emotions are feelings such as happiness, despair, and sorrow that generally have both physiological and cognitive elements influencing behavior.
- While motives are internally caused, emotions are responses to an external stimulus.

Three Components of Emotion

The physiology of emotion

- when a person experiences an emotion, there is physical arousal created by the **sympathetic nervous system**.
- **Bodily arousal**: The heart rate increases, breathing becomes more rapid, the pupils of the eye dilate, and the mouth may become dry
- **ANS**: Consists of two parts:
 - **Sympathetic Nervous System**: Activated in response to external threats and arouses the body for action.
 - **Parasympathetic Nervous System**: Supports activities that maintain the body to restore energy.
- It calms down the body to maintain energy by slowing heart rate, lowering blood pressure, and so on.

Cont...

The behavior of emotion

- tells us how people behave in the grip of an emotion.
- Characteristic overt expressions of emotions.
- There are facial expressions, tone of voice, touching, posture, Body gestures, **body** movements, and actions that indicate to others how a person feels.

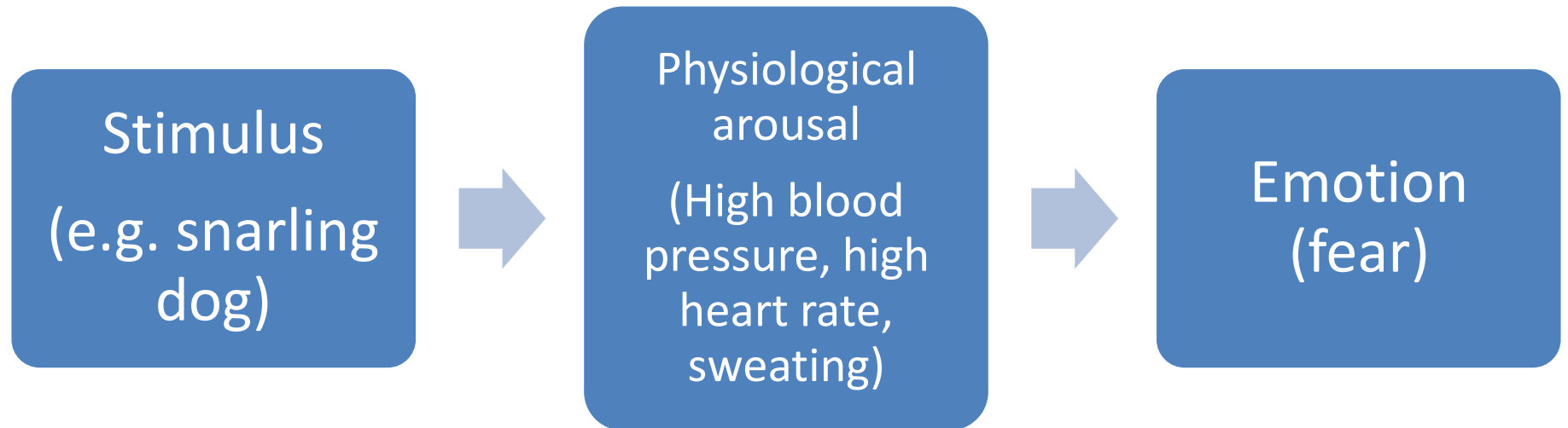
Subjective experience or labeling emotion

- it involves interpreting the **subjective feeling** by giving it a label: anger, fear, disgust, happiness, sadness, shame, interest, surprise and so on.
- Also called cognitive component, because the labeling process is a matter of retrieving memories of previous similar experiences, perceiving the context of the emotion, and coming up with a solution- a label.

Theories of Emotion

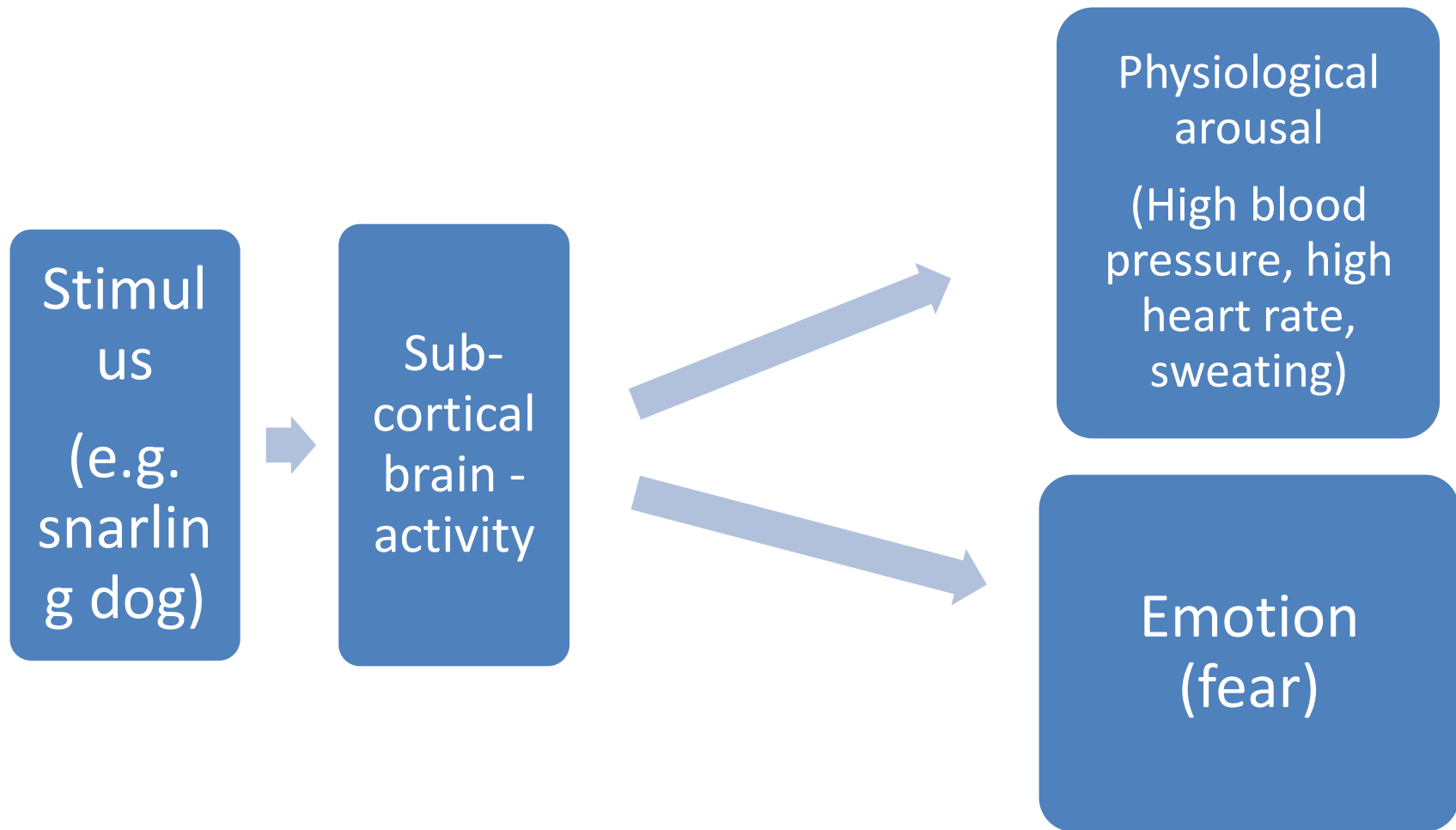
James- Lang Theory of Emotion

- This theory of emotion is based on the work of William James & Carl Lang (1885).
- In this theory, a *stimulus* of some sort (for example, the large snarling dog) produces a physiological reaction. This reaction, which is the *arousal* of the fight-or-flight|| sympathetic nervous system (wanting to run), produces bodily sensations such as increased heart rate, dry mouth, and rapid breathing.
- James and Lang believed that physical arousal led to the labeling of the *emotion* (fear).



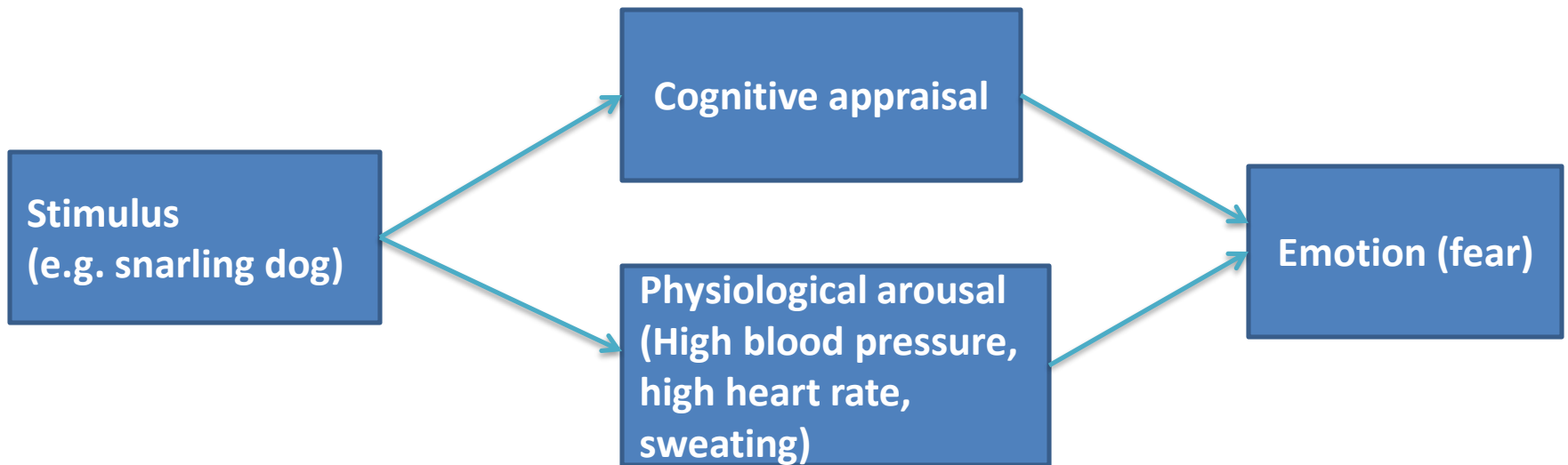
Cannon-Bard theory of emotion

- Developed by Physiologists **Walter Cannon and (1927) and Philip Bard (1934)** .
- theorized that the **emotion and the physiological arousal** occur more or less at the **same time**.
- Cannon, an expert in sympathetic arousal mechanisms, did not feel that the physical changes aroused by different emotions were distinct enough to allow them to be perceived as different emotions.
- Bard expanded on this idea by stating that the sensory information that comes into the brain is sent simultaneously (by the thalamus) to both the cortex and the organs of the sympathetic nervous system.
- The fear and the bodily reactions are, therefore, experienced at the same time-not one after the other.



Schechter-Singer and Cognitive Arousal Theory

- They proposed that two things have to happen before emotion occurs: **the physical arousal and labeling of the arousal** base on cues from the surrounding environment.
- These two things happen at the **same time**, resulting in the labeling of the emotion.



CHAPTER SIX

PERSONALITY



Chapter outline

- Define personality
- The nature of psychoanalytic theory
 - The structure of personality
 - psychological defense mechanisms
- The essence of the trait theory of personality
 - the five factor model of personality
- The essence of humanistic theory of personality

Meaning of Personality

- The word personality is derived from the word “**persona**”, which has Greek and Latin roots and refers to the **theatrical masks** worn by Greek actors.
- The **unique pattern** of enduring thoughts, feelings, and actions that characterize a person.
- Terms:
 - **Character**: value judgments made about a person’s morals or ethical behavior.
 - **Temperament**: enduring characteristics with which each person is born, such as irritability or adaptability.
- both character and temperament are **vital personalities**.

Theories of Personality

- Personality is one of the relatively *young sub-fields* of psychology.
- Personality theories showcase **several ways** in which the characteristic behavior of human beings can be explained.
- Specific questions psychologists ask & **methods** they use to investigate often depend on types of theories they take.
- Even though there are a number of theories in personality, we will focus on the major three.

Theories of Personality

Three major theories of personality

- ❑ The psychoanalytic theory of personality

- ❑ The trait theory of personality

- ❑ Humanistic theory of personality

- Each of these [perspectives on personality](#) attempts to describe different patterns in [personality](#), including how these patterns form and how people differ on an individual level.

Psychoanalytic Theory

- Formulated by the Austrian physician named *Sigmund Freud* (1856-1939).

Assumption

- personality is formed *within ourselves*, arising from basic *inborn needs, drives, and characteristics*.
- He argued that people are in constant *conflict* between their biological urges (drives) and the need to tame them.
- In Freud's view, personality has three parts which serves a different function and develops at different times: the id, the ego, and the superego.
 - According to Freud, the way these three parts of personality interact with one another determines the personality of an individual.

Personality Structures

Id: If It Feels Good, Do It-

- The first and most primitive part of the personality in the infant is the id.
- The Id is a Latin word that means “it “.
- The id is a completely unconscious amoral part of the personality that exists at birth, containing all of the basic biological drives; hunger, thirst, sex, aggression, for example.
- When these drives are active, the person will feel an increase in not only physical tension but also in psychological tension that Freud called libido, the instinctual energy that may come into conflict with the demands a society’s standards for behavior.

Cont...

- When libidinal energy is high, it is unpleasant for the person, so the goal is to reduce libido by fulfilling the drive; Eat when hungry, drink when thirsty, and satisfy the sex when the need for pleasure is present.
- Freud called this need for satisfaction the pleasure principle, which can be defined as the desire for immediate satisfaction of needs with no regard for the consequences. The pleasure principle can be summed up simply as “if it feels good, do it.”

Ego: The Executive Director-

- According to Freud, to deal with reality, the second part of personality develops called the ego.
- The ego, from the Latin word for “I”, is mostly conscious and is far more rational, logical and cunning than the id.
- The ego works on the reality principle, which is the need to satisfy the demands of the id and reduce libido only in ways that will not lead to negative consequences.
- This means that sometimes the ego decides to deny the id its drives because the consequence would be painful or too unpleasant.

Superego: The Moral Watchdog

- Freud called the third and final part of the personality, the moral center of personality, the superego.
- The superego (also Latin, meaning "over the self") develops as a preschool-aged child learns the rules, customs, and expectations of society.
- There are two parts to the superego:
 - **The ego-ideal** is a kind of measuring device. It is the sum of all the ideal or correct and acceptable behavior that the child has learned about from parents and others in the society. All behavior is held up to this standard and judged by the conscience.
 - **The conscience** is part of the personality that makes people pride when they do the right thing and guilt, or moral anxiety when they do the wrong thing.

Defense Mechanisms

- For Freud, our personality is the outcome of the continual battle for dominance among the id, the ego, and the superego.
- This constant conflict between them is managed by psychological defense mechanisms.
- Defense mechanisms are unconscious tactics that either prevent threatening material from surfacing or disguise it when it does.
- Some of the psychological defense mechanisms are discussed below.

Repression

- *banishing* threatening thoughts, feelings, and memories into the *unconscious* mind.

Denial

- *refusal* to recognize or acknowledge a threatening situation.

Regression

- involves reverting to *immature* behaviors that have relieved anxiety in the past.

Rationalization

- giving *socially acceptable* reasons for one's inappropriate behavior.

Displacement

- involves expressing feelings toward a person who is *less threatening* than the person who is the true target of those feelings.

Projection

- involves *attributing* one's undesirable feelings to other people.

Reaction formation

- involves a tendency to act in a manner *opposite* to one's true feelings.

Sublimation

- involves expressing sexual or aggressive behavior through indirect, socially *acceptable* outlets.

The Trait Theory of Personality

- It is a combination of *stable internal characteristics* that people display *consistently over time and across situations*.
- Trait theorists seek to measure the relative strength of the many personality characteristics that they believe are present in everyone.

Assumptions

- Personality traits are *relatively stable*, *across situations*, and therefore *predictable*, over time.
- Personality traits are relatively stable across situations
- People differ in *how much* of a particular personality trait they possess; no two people are exactly alike on all traits.
- The result is an endless variety of *unique* personalities.

The Big five Theory

- ❑ Robert McCrae and Paul Costa
- ❑ is also known as the five factor model
- ❑ is known as **OCEAN** for short

Openness: a person's willingness to try *new things* and be *open to new experiences*.

Conscientiousness : refers to a person's organization and motivation, with people who score high in the dimension being those who are careful about being in places on time and careful with belongings as well.

Extraversion: is a term first used by Carl Jung, who believed that all people could be divided into two personality types: extraverts and introverts. Extraverts are outgoing and sociable, whereas introverts are more solitary and dislike being the center of attention.

Agreeableness: refers to the basic emotional style of a person, who may be easygoing, friendly, helpful, cooperative and pleasant (at the high end of the scale) or grumpy, crabby, hostile, self centered and hard to get along with (at the low end).

Neuroticism: refers to emotional instability or stability. People who are excessively worried, overanxious and moody would score high on this dimension, whereas those who are more even-tempered and calm could score low.

Humanistic theory of personality

(Carl Rogers, Abraham Maslow)

- ✓ Emphasize people's *inherent goodness and their tendency to move toward higher levels of functioning* instead of seeing people as controlled by the unconscious.
- ✓ Assume people have *conscious, self-motivated ability* to change and improve, along with people's unique creative impulses.
- ✓ Psychology to focus on the things that make people uniquely human, such as subjective emotions and the freedom to choose one's destiny
- ✓ is regarded as the *third force* in psychology

Carl Rogers and Self-Concept

Assumption

- human beings are always *striving* to fulfill their innate capacities and capabilities and to become everything that their *genetic potential will allow* them to become.
- This striving for fulfillment is called *self-actualizing tendency*.
- An important tool in human self-actualization is the development of an image of oneself or the *self-concept*.
- The self-concept is based on what people are told by *others* and how the sense of self is reflected in the *words and actions* of important people in one's life, such as parents, siblings, coworkers, friends, and teachers.

Cont...

- ✓ The **self concept** is an important element in this theory
 - ❖ **The real self**
 - One's actual perception of characteristics, traits, and abilities that form the basis of the striving for self-actualization.
 - ❖ **The ideal self**
 - ✓ The perception of what one should be or would like to be.
- ✓ Rogers believed that when the real self and the ideal self are very close or similar to each other, people feel competent and capable. Otherwise anxiety and neurotic behavior can be the result.

Conditional and Unconditional Positive Regard

- Rogers defined positive regard as warmth, affection, love, and respect that comes from the significant others (parents, admired adults, friends, and teachers) in people's experience.
- Positive is vital to people's ability to cope with stress and to strive to achieve self-actualization.
- Rogers believed that unconditioned positive regard, or love, affection and respect with no strings attached, is necessary for people to be able to explore fully all that they can achieve and become.
- Unfortunately, some parents, spouses, and friends give conditional positive regard, which is love, affection, respect and warmth that depend, or seem to depend, on doing what those people want.

Cont...

- For Rogers, a person who is in the process of self-actualizing, activity exploring potentials and abilities and experiencing a match between real and ideal selves is a fully functioning person.

Chapter 7: Psychological Disorders and Treatment Techniques



Learning Outcomes

- Describe how psychological disorders are defined, as well as the inherent difficulties in doing so.
- Identify the nature of psychological disorders.
- Explain the causes of psychological disorders.
- Identify the different types, characteristic features of psychological disorders.
- Explain different theories to explain the nature of abnormality.
- Discuss the treatment techniques.

Nature of Psychological Disorders

- **Three main criteria:**

- **Abnormality:** It deviates from the typical behavior in society/norm (**Deviation** from normality)
 - *The context in which „abnormal“ behavior occurs must be considered before deciding that it is symptomatic of psychological disorders*
- **Mal-adaptiveness:** It disrupts the personal and social life of an individual (**maladaptiveness** or adjustment problems)
- **Personal distress:** A personal feelings of stress, anxiety, tension and other unpleasant emotions (**personal distress**)

Definition

- Is a condition characterized by **abnormal** thoughts, feelings, and behaviors.
- it is a pattern of behavioral & psychological symptoms that causes significant personal distress, impairs ability to function in one or more important areas of life, or both.
- **Psychopathology** is the study of psychological disorders, including their symptoms, etiology (i.e., their causes), and treatment.

Causes of Psychological Disorders

The biological Perspective

- ✓ Abnormalities in the function of chemicals in the brain, called neurotransmitters, may contribute to many psychological disorders.
- ✓ Over activity of the neurotransmitter dopamine, perhaps caused by an overabundance of certain dopamine receptors in the brain, has been linked to the bizarre symptoms of schizophrenia.

Psychological Perspectives

- ✓ Three approaches are usually examined in this perspective

The Psychoanalytic Approach

- ✓ *Abnormal behavior is caused by the ego's inability to manage the conflict between the opposing demands of the id and the superego*

The Learning Approach

- ✓ Most mental and emotional disorders arise from inadequate or inappropriate learning.
- ✓ People acquire abnormal behaviors through the various kinds of learning

The Cognitive Approach

- ✓ Self-defeating thoughts lead to the development of negative emotions and self-destructive behaviors.
- ✓ Thinking patterns in one way or another affects our emotional and behavioral wellbeing in either positive or negative ways.

Types of Psychological Disorders

Mood Disorder

- ✓ are characterized by a serious change in mood from ***depressed*** to ***elevated*** feelings causing disruption to life activities.
- ✓ general emotional state or mood is distorted or inconsistent with your circumstances and interferes with your ability to function
 - ✓ ***Depressive disorder*** is characterized by overall feelings of desperation and inactivity.
 - ✓ ***Elevated moods*** are characterized by mania or hypomania. The cycling between both depressed and manic moods is characteristic of bipolar mood disorders.

Includes

- ***Major Depression (also known as depression or clinical depression)***
 - is characterized by depressed mood, diminished interest in activities previously enjoyed, weight disturbance, sleep disturbance, loss of energy, difficulty concentrating, and often includes feelings of hopelessness and thoughts of suicide.
- ***Dysthymia***
 - is often considered a lesser, but more persistent form of depression.
 - Many of the symptoms are similar except to a lesser degree. Also, dysthymia, as opposed to Major Depression is steadier rather than periods of normal feelings and extreme lows

cont...

- ***Bipolar Disorder (previously known as Manic-Depression)***
 - is characterized by periods of extreme highs (called mania) and extreme lows as in Major Depression.
 - Bipolar Disorder is sub-typed either I (extreme or hypermanic episodes) or II (moderate or hypomanic episodes).
- ***Cyclothymia***
 - Like Dysthymia and Major Depression, Cyclothymia is considered a lesser form of Bipolar Disorder

Anxiety Disorder

- Anxiety is a normal reaction to stress and can be beneficial in some situations
- involve ***excessive*** fear, irrational anxiety or abnormal or inappropriate anxiety.
- are the most common of mental disorders and affect nearly 30 percent of adults
 - **Phobia** which refers to an intense and irrational fear of an object, person or place is an example of anxiety disorder
 - Zoophobia, Lygophobia, hydrophobia, autophobia, acrophobia, agoraphobia are common examples

Includes

- ***Panic Disorder***
 - is characterized by a series of panic attacks.
 - is an inappropriate intense feeling of fear or discomfort including many of the following symptoms: heart palpitations, trembling, shortness of breath, chest pain, dizziness.
- ***Agoraphobia***
 - literally means fear of the marketplace.
 - It refers to a series of symptoms where the person fears, and often avoids, situations where escape or help might not be available, such as shopping centers, grocery stores, or other public place.
 - Agoraphobia is often a part of panic disorder if the panic attacks are severe enough to result in an avoidance of these types of places.

Cont...

- ***Specific or Simple Phobia and Social Phobia***
 - It represent an ***intense fear*** and often an avoidance of a specific situation, person, place, or thing.
- ***Obsessive-Compulsive Disorder (OCD)***
 - It is characterized by obsessions (thoughts which seem uncontrollable) and compulsions (behaviors which act to reduce the obsession).
 - Most people think of compulsive hand washers or people with an intense fear of dirt or of being infected. ***such as checking, counting, cleaning, or bathing***

Cont...

- ***Posttraumatic Stress Disorder (PTSD)***
 - It occurs only after a person is exposed to a traumatic event where their life or someone else's life is threatened.
 - The most common examples are war, natural disasters, major accidents, and severe child abuse. Once exposed to an incident such as this, the disorder develops into an intense fear of related situations, avoidance of these situations, reoccurring nightmares, flashbacks, and heightened anxiety to the point that it significantly disrupts their everyday life.
- ***Generalized Anxiety Disorder***
 - It is diagnosed when a person has extreme anxiety in nearly every part of their life.
 - It is not associated with just open places (as in agoraphobia), specific situations (as in specific phobia), or a traumatic event (as in PTSD).
 - The anxiety must be significant enough to disrupt the person's everyday life for a diagnosis to be made.

Personality Disorders

- ✓ Is a rigid and unhealthy pattern of thinking, functioning and behaving.
- ✓ Characterized by trouble perceiving and relating to situations and people
- ✓ Characterized by an enduring pattern of thinking, feeling, and behaving which is significantly different from the person's culture and results in negative consequences.
- ✓ Maladaptive or inflexible ways of dealing with others and one's environment

Nine Types of Personality Disorders

- ***Paranoid*** (includes a pattern of distrust and suspiciousness).
- ***Schizoid*** (pattern of detachment from social norms and a restriction of emotions).
- ***Antisocial*** (pattern of disregard for the rights of others, including violation of these rights and the failure to feel empathy).
- ***Borderline*** (pattern of instability in personal relationships, including frequent bouts of clinginess and affection and anger and resentment, often cycling between these two extremes rapidly).

Cont...

- ***Histrionic*** (pattern of excessive emotional behavior and attention seeking).
- ***Schizotypal*** (pattern of discomfort in close relationships and eccentric thoughts and behaviors).
- ***Narcissistic*** (pattern of grandiosity, exaggerated self-worth, and need for admiration).
- ***Avoidant*** (pattern of feelings of social inadequacies, low self-esteem, and hypersensitivity to criticism).
- ***Obsessive-Compulsive*** (pattern of obsessive cleanliness, perfection, and control).

Treatment Techniques

- ✓ Treatment of mental illnesses can take various forms. They can include
 - ✓ Medication,
 - ✓ Talk- therapy,
 - ✓ a combination of both,
- ✓ and can last only one session or take many years to complete.
- ✓ Psychotherapy consists of the following:
 - A positive, healthy relationship between a client or patient and a trained psychotherapist
 - Recognizable mental health issues, whether diagnosable or not
 - Agreement on the basic goals of treatment
 - Working together as a team to achieve these goals

Treatment Approaches

Psychotherapy

- ✓ Involves providing psychological treatment to individuals with some kind of psychological problems .

❖ Goal

- ✓ to help the client reduce negative symptoms,
- ✓ gain insight into why these symptoms occurred
- ✓ work through those issues
- ✓ reduce the emergence of the symptoms in the future.

❖ Issues to be considered in Psychotherapy

○ Empathy

- ✓ Involves being able to understand his or her client's feelings, thoughts, and behaviors

○ Being Neutral

- ✓ The therapist must be non judgmental in his approach.
- ✓ If the therapist is judgmental, the client does not feel safe talking about similar issues again.

cont...

- ***Cognitive Therapists***: look at dysfunctions and difficulties as arising from irrational or faulty thinking.
- ***Behavioural models*** look at problems as arising from our behaviors which we have learned to perform over years of reinforcement.
- ***The psychodynamic*** camp look more at issues beginning in early childhood which then motivate us as adults at an unconscious level.
- ***Most mental health professionals nowadays are more eclectic in that they study how to treat people using different approaches. These professionals are sometimes referred to as integrationists.***

Treatment Modalities

❖ A therapist and a client

- ✓ Therapy is most often thought of as a one-on-one relationship between a client or patient and a therapist.

❖ Group Therapy

- ✓ individuals suffering from similar illnesses or having similar issues meet together with one or two therapists.
- ✓ Is helpful in making clients develop the feeling to belong, understood, and know that there is hope

cont...

❖ Family/ Couple therapy

- In this type of treatment, the issues to be worked on center around the relationship.
- There is often an educational component such as communication training, and couples and families are encouraged to work together as a team rather than against each other.
- The therapist's job is to facilitate healthy interaction, encourage the couple or family to gain insight into their own behaviors, and to teach the members to listen to and respect each other

See you next week...

& Happy Reading!

